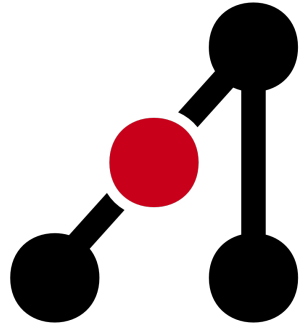


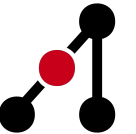


**Adelaide Competitive
Programming Club**

Round 2 Workshop

Complexity, Big O Notation and Basic Algorithms &
Data Structures

Complexity and Big O



Complexity

- The performance of a program may vary between different systems.
 - Even on the same system, a program is likely to vary in speed and memory usage every time it is executed.
- Complexity is a theoretical measure of a program's execution time as its input size increases.
- Complexity analysis gives us a marker that allows for the comparison of programs and algorithms, regardless of the machine it runs on.



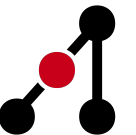
Time and Space Complexity

- We apply complexity in both time and space dimensions.
- Time complexity represents the theoretical runtime of our algorithm.
- Space complexity represents the memory usage of our program.



How Can We Measure Time and Space Complexity?

- The **Big O** notation is the mathematical representation of time and space complexity.
- We represent Big O notation using $O(n)$, where n is the size of the input we are operating on.
- Big O represents an upper-bound for the complexity of our program, meaning the runtime will not exceed this expression.
- The expression within $O(\dots)$ is the rate of growth at which our program's complexity will scale.
- For example:
 - We say that $O(n)$ time complexity is a program which runs in *linear time*.
 - We say that $O(n^2)$ time complexity is a program which runs in *quadratic time*.

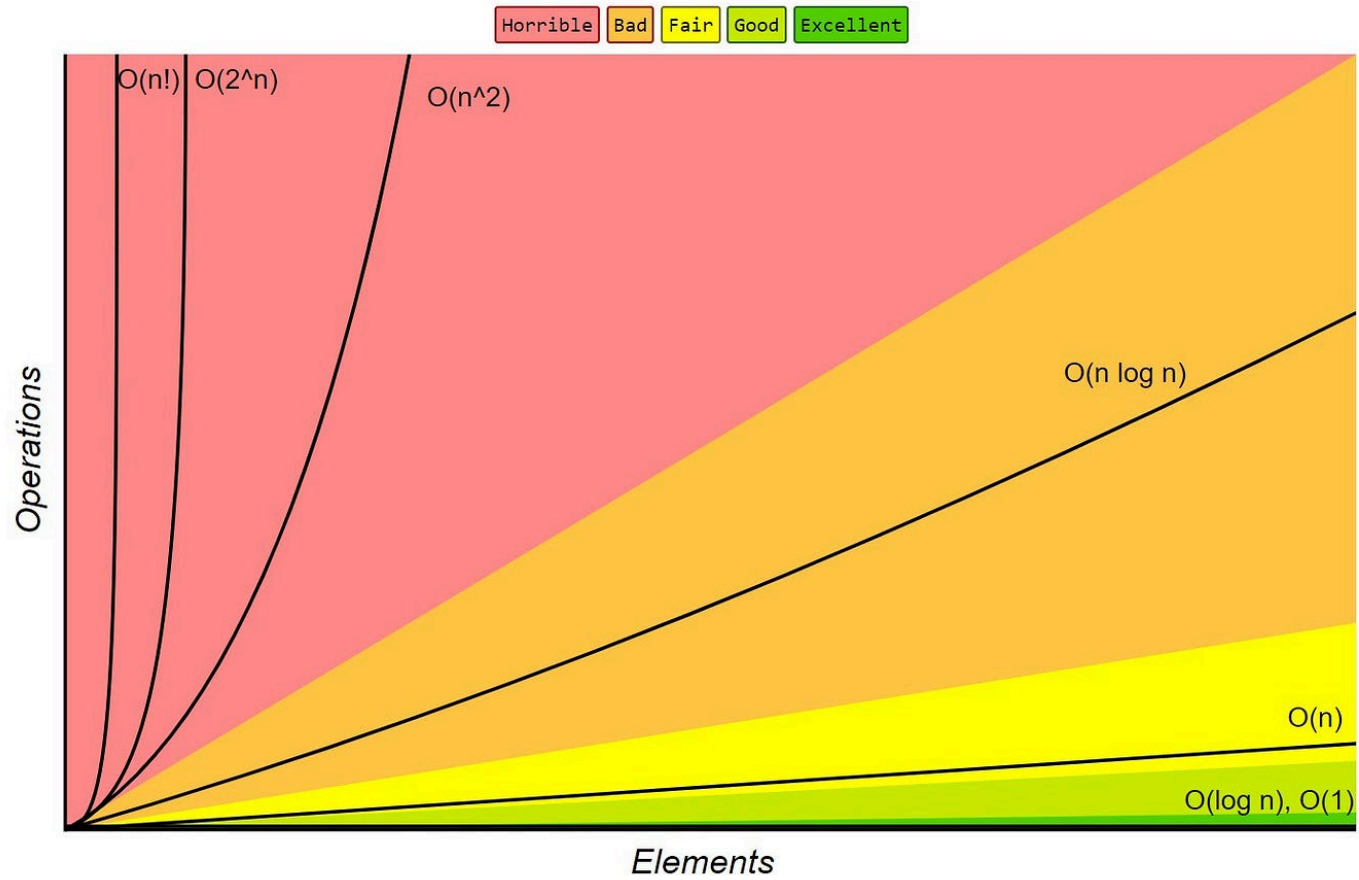


What Complexity Are We Allowed in Competitive Programming?

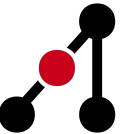
- Online judges iterate about 10^7 times per second.
- Code is generally given 1 or 2 seconds to complete.
- This means we have approximately $1 * 10^7$ to $2 * 10^7$ max program iterations before an algorithm will fail due to exceeding the time limit.
- For example, say $n = 10^5$:
 - Algorithm A executes with a time complexity of $O(n)$, 10^5 operations.
 - $\therefore$ Operations are executed within the time limit: $10^5 < 2 * 10^7$
 - Algorithm B executes with a time complexity of $O(n^2)$, 10^{10} operations.
 - $\therefore$ Time limit exceeded (TLE): $n = 10^{10} < 2 * 10^7$



Big-O Complexity Chart



Complexity Analysis



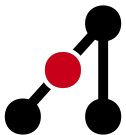
Steps for Analysis

1. Identify input size n : number of elements, nodes, or other units that scale.
2. Count basic operations: loops, recursive calls, and lookups.
3. Express as a function of n :
 - For example: $O(n)$, $O(n^2)$, $O(\log n)$.
4. Keep the dominant term and drop constants.

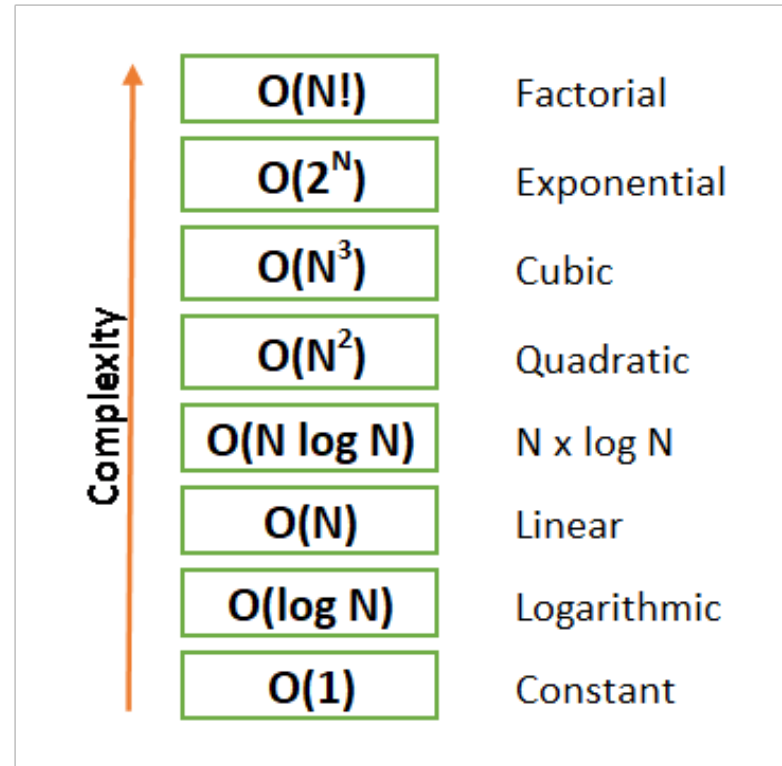


Dominance in Complexity

- The dominant term in a complexity analysis is that which grows fastest.
- Other terms which are not dominant, will eventually become negligible in size as n approaches infinity (you will learn more about this in math or algorithms classes).
- Note that constant terms, denoted $O(1)$ can be ignored for sufficiently small constant values.
- $f(n) = 3n^2 + 5n + 7$, Dominant term is n^2 , so complexity is $O(n^2)$
- $g(n) = n \log n + 1000$, Dominant term is $n \log n$, so complexity is $O(n \log n)$
- $h(n) = 50n + 200$, Dominant term is n , so complexity is $O(n)$
- $i(n) = 50 + 200$, Dominant term is constant, so complexity is $O(1)$



Order of Complexity Dominance



$O(1)$ Complexity Example

```
def get_first(arr):  
    return arr[0]
```

 Python

- This operation to access a random element within an array can be done in constant time.
- With an index, we travel directly to this memory location and return the variable stored here.



$O(n)$ Complexity Example

```
def sum_array(arr):
```

 Python

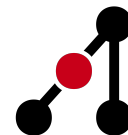
```
    total = 0
```

```
    for x in arr:          #  $O(n)$ 
```

```
        total += x        #  $O(1)$ 
```

```
    return total
```

- We iterate over the entire array of size n .
 - At each iteration we are performing basic arithmetic operations, which can be done in constant time, $O(1)$.
- We can calculate the complexity looking at the nested operations and multiplying their complexities together:
 - $O(n) * O(1) = O(n * 1) = O(n)$



$O(n^2)$ Complexity Example

```
def print_pairs(arr):  
    for i in range(len(arr)):      #  $O(n)$   
        for j in range(len(arr)):  #  $O(n)$   
            print(arr[j])          #  $O(1)$ 
```

 Python

- We iterate over the entire array of size n .
 - But for each outer loop, we loop through the entire array of size n again.
 - At each iteration we are printing a single number, which can be done in constant time, $O(1)$.
- We can calculate the complexity looking at the nested operations and multiplying their complexities together:
 - $O(n) * O(n) * O(1) = O(n * n * 1) = O(n^2)$

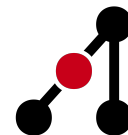


$O(n * m)$ Complexity Example

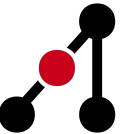
```
def process(nums, s):  
    # nums has size n  
    # string, s, has size m  
    for x in nums:          #  $O(n)$   
        for c in s:        #  $O(m)$   
            print(x, c)    #  $O(1)$ 
```

 Python

- We iterate over the entire array of size n .
 - For each iteration of the array, we iterate over the whole string of size m
 - For each character in the string, we print the current index of the array and character of the string we are looking at.
- We can calculate the complexity looking at the nested operations and multiplying their complexities together:
 - $O(n) * O(m) * O(1) = O(n * m * 1) = O(n * m)$



Sorting and Searching

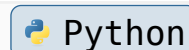


Sorting

Sacrificing the upfront cost of sorting, which is typically to the order of $O(n \log n)$, allows us to operate on the data more efficiently, since we know the order of the elements.

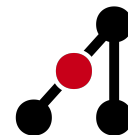
In Python we sort by:

```
nums = [4,5,3,1,2]
newList = sorted(nums);           # Put sorted list into newList = [1,2,3,4,5]
nums.sort();                      # Sort in place: nums = [1,2,3,4,5]
```



In C++ we sort by:

```
vector<int> nums = {4,5,3,1,2};
sort(nums.begin(), nums.end());  // Inplace
ranges::sort(nums);              // Inplace
```



Naive Searching

- What if we want to check to see if an element exists in an array?
- We could iterate across all of the elements from left to right and check our array.

```
def linear_search(arr, target):  
    for i in range(len(arr)):  
        if arr[i] == target:  
            return i                # return index if found  
    return -1                       # not found
```

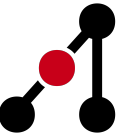
 Python

- The complexity here is $O(n)$ because we are iterating across the entire array.



Binary Search

- What if our array is sorted?
- We could look at the middle value first.
 - If this middle value is too small, we should look to the right.
 - Else, if this middle value is too large, we should look to the left.
 - Else, the middle value is equal to our target so we have found it!



Binary Search Example

Index: 0 1 2 3 4 5 6 7 8 9

-5	-2	0	1	2	4	5	6	7	10
low				middle		high			

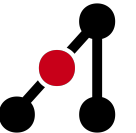
$7 > 2$ (i.e. $\text{target} > \text{nums}[\text{middle}]$)
Update *low*

-5	-2	0	1	2	4	5	6	7	10
					low		middle		high

$7 > 6$ (i.e. $\text{target} > \text{nums}[\text{middle}]$)
Update *low*

-5	-2	0	1	2	4	5	6	7	10
								low high	
								middle	

$7 = 7$ (i.e. $\text{target} = \text{nums}[\text{middle}]$)
Return *middle*



Binary Search Complexity

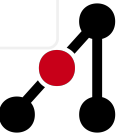
- Binary search can be performed in $O(\log n)$, which is far more efficient than $O(n)$.
- Why?
 1. After the first step we have $\frac{n}{2}$ elements remaining in the search space.
 2. After the first step we have $\frac{n}{4}$ elements remaining in the search space.
 3. After the first step we have $\frac{n}{8}$ elements remaining in the search space.
- We can say that at any binary search step, k , the remaining search size will be $= \frac{n}{2^k}$
- We stop when $\frac{n}{2^k} = 1$, when one element remains we must have either found our target or it does not exist in the array.
- Therefore, $n = 2^k$ so $k = \log_2(n)$ iterations are required to find an element.
- Our complexity of the binary search is $O(\log_2 n) \sim O(\log n)$.



Binary Search Code

```
def binary_search(arr, target):  
    left, right = 0, len(arr) - 1      # start with 2 pointers at the edges  
  
    while left <= right:  
        mid = (left + right) // 2      # calculate the midpoint index  
  
        if arr[mid] == target:         # if we find the target, return its index  
            return mid  
        elif arr[mid] < target:        # current number is too small  
            left = mid + 1  
        else:                          # current number is too large  
            right = mid - 1  
  
    return -1                          # failed to find the index, return sentinel
```

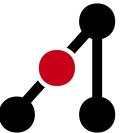
 Python



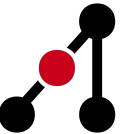
Binary Search Questions

Some binary search questions on leetcode! We don't expect you to know everything so make sure to ask us for help.

- [704. Binary Search](#)
- [69. Sqrt\(x\)](#)



2 Pointers



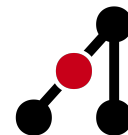
2 Pointers

- Did anyone notice the use of two pointers to track our search space in the binary search?

```
def binary_search(arr, target):  
    left, right = 0, len(arr) - 1          # start with 2 pointers at the edges
```

 Python

- Using two pointers is a powerful tool in navigating data structures.
- We organise two pointers in many ways:
 - We could have them travelling from opposite ends of an array, converging in the centre.
 - We could use them to simulate a sliding window.
 - We could have a slow pointer and fast pointer (detecting cycles), advanced.

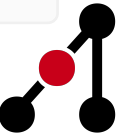


2 Pointers Travelling from Opposite Ends Example

- How can we check that a word is palindrome?
 - Palindrome means it reads the same right to left as it does left to right.

```
def is_palindrome(s):  
    left, right = 0, len(s) - 1  
    while left < right:  
        if s[left] != s[right]:  
            return False  
        left += 1  
        right -= 1  
    return True  
  
print(is_palindrome("racecar")) # True  
print(is_palindrome("hello"))  # False
```

 Python



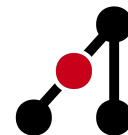
2 Pointers Sliding Window

- How can we find the maximum subarray sum of an array?
- Which subarray of size k has the largest sum of its numbers?
- Naively:

```
def max_sum_subarray_naive(nums, k):  
    max_sum = float('-inf')  
    for i in range(len(nums) - k + 1):  
        current_sum = 0  
        for j in range(i, i + k):  
            current_sum += nums[j]  
        max_sum = max(max_sum, current_sum)  
    return max_sum
```

 Python

- Takes $O(n * k)$ to complete.



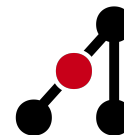
2 Pointers Sliding Window

- Optimised:

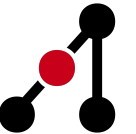
```
def max_sum_subarray(nums, k):  
    window_sum = sum(nums[:k])  
    max_sum = window_sum  
  
    for i in range(k, len(nums)):  
        window_sum += nums[i]           # take in the newest element  
        window_sum -= nums[i - k]       # kick out the oldest element  
        max_sum = max(max_sum, window_sum)  
  
    return max_sum
```

 Python

- Takes $O(n)$ to complete as we only add or subtract each element once, $O(2n) = O(n)$.



Prefix Sum

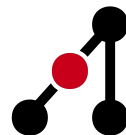


Prefix Sum

- A prefix sum allows use quickly check the sum of a range of numbers in constant time.
 - I.e. `prefix[i]` represents the sum of numbers from index `0` to `i`.
 - I.e. `prefix[i] - prefix[i-k]` represents the sum of numbers from index `i-k+1` to `i`.
- This is useful if you are asked for the sum of numbers in a range, numerous times.
- By spending $O(n)$ time and space to build a prefix sum, you can answer range sum queries in $O(1)$ time:

```
def range_sum(prefix, L, R):  
    if L == 0:  
        return prefix[R]  
    return prefix[R] - prefix[L - 1]
```

 Python

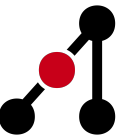


Building the Prefix Sum

```
def build_prefix(nums):  
    prefix = [0] * len(nums)  
  
    prefix[0] = nums[0]  
  
    for i in range(1, len(nums)):  
        prefix[i] = prefix[i - 1] + nums[i]  
  
    return prefix
```

 Python

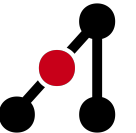
- You can build a *suffix* sum by constructing the prefix sum backwards, from right to left.



Prefix Sum Practise Questions

Here are some prefix sum question to deepen your understanding!

- [1480. Running Sum of 1D Array](#)
- [2574. Left and Right Sum](#)



Greedy



What is Greedy

- A greedy algorithm builds a solution step-by-step, always choosing the locally optimal choice at each step.
- It does not reconsider previous choices, unlike backtracking.
- Works best when the problem has:
 - Greedy choice property: local optimum leads to global optimum.
 - Optimal substructure: optimal solution can be built from optimal subproblems.
- Typically used for:
 - Scheduling problems
 - MSTs (Prim's, Kruskal's) (more on this in future workshops or algorithms classes)
 - Shortest paths (Dijkstra's)
 - Interval problems



Greedy Example

- Coin change: given a set of coins (with replacement), find the minimum amount of coins required to reach a target sum.

```
def coin_change_greedy(amount):  
    coins = [25, 10, 5, 1]  
    count = 0  
  
    for coin in coins:  
        while amount >= coin:  
            amount -= coin  
            count += 1  
    return count
```

 Python

- Having the coins in sorted order allow us to use the greedy strategy, where we trial the next largest coin if the current coin is too large.



Complexity Quiz Time

